

Lecture 7

Advanced ggplot Chart Types

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☀ Beyond the usual bar chart and scatterplot

- `ggplot2` can build many chart types by layering familiar geoms and statistics.
- The key question is not just **how** to draw a chart, but **when** that chart is useful.
- Today we focus on chart types that are especially helpful for **comparisons, flows, compositions, and text**.

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📦 Load the data

```
1 eia <- read_csv("https://bcdanl.github.io/data/danl-310-s26-midterm-q4.csv")
2
3 titanic <- read_csv("https://bcdanl.github.io/data/titanic_cleaned.csv") |
4   mutate(survived = if_else(survived, "Survived", "Did not\n survive"))
5
6 org <- socviz::organdata
7
8 netflix <- read_csv("https://bcdanl.github.io/data/netflix_cleaned.csv")
```

🔧 Install the packages

```
1 install.packages(c(
2   "ggalluvial", "GGally", "ggcorrplot", "tidytext", "ggwordcloud"
3 ))
4
5 remotes::install_github("ricardo-bion/ggradar")
6 remotes::install_github("https://github.com/davidsjoberg/ggstream")
7
8 library(ggstream)
9 library(ggalluvial)
10 library(ggradar)
11 library(GGally)
12 library(ggcorrplot)
13 library(tidytext)
14 library(ggwordcloud)
```

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🏋️ Dumbbell charts

🎯 What is a dumbbell chart?

- A dumbbell chart compares **two values for the same group**.
- It emphasizes the **distance between endpoints**.
- It is often clearer than a grouped bar chart when the goal is to compare change.

🌐 Prepare `gapminder` for a dumbbell chart

```
1 gap_dumbbell <- gapminder |>
2   filter(year %in% c(1952, 2007), continent == "Asia") |>
3   select(country, year, lifeExp) |>
4   pivot_wider(names_from = year,
5               values_from = lifeExp,
6               names_prefix = "year_") |>
7   mutate(change = year_2007 - year_1952) |>
8   slice_max(change, n = 12) |>
9   arrange(change) |>
10  mutate(country = fct_inorder(country))
```

- Each country has one value in **1952** and one in **2007**.
- We keep 12 countries with the largest increase in life expectancy.

🏋️ Dumbbell chart: life expectancy change

```
1 ggplot(gap_dumbbell, aes(y = country)) +
2   geom_segment(aes(x = year_1952,
3                   xend = year_2007,
4                   yend = country),
5               linewidth = 2,
6               color = "gray70") +
7   geom_point(aes(x = year_1952,
8                 size = 4, color = "steelblue") +
9   geom_point(aes(x = year_2007,
10                 size = 4, color = "darkorange") +
11   labs(
12     x = "Life expectancy",
13     y = NULL,
14     title = "Life expectancy in 1952 vs 2007",
15     subtitle = "Selected Asian countries with the largest gains",
16     caption = "Data: gapminder"
17   )
```

- The segment shows the gap between the two values.
- The two endpoint colors mark the start and end year.

💡 When dumbbell charts work well

- Use them when each group has **exactly two values** you want to compare.
- They are especially good for **before/after**, **men/women**, **baseline/follow-up**, or **first/last year** comparisons.
- They become less useful when there are many groups or more than two time points.



Slope graphs

🔗 What is a slope graph?

- A slope graph also compares **two values per group**.
- But the main emphasis is the **direction and steepness of change**.
- It is especially useful when the left side and right side represent two different time points.



Prepare data for a slope graph

```
1 gap_slope <- gapminder |>
2   filter(year %in% c(1952, 2007),
3     country %in% c("United States", "Canada", "Japan") |
4     str_detect(country, "Korea")) |>
5   select(country, year, gdpPerCap) |>
6   mutate(year = factor(year)) |>
7   group_by(country) |>
8   summarize(
9     `1952` = gdpPerCap[year == "1952"],
10    `2007` = gdpPerCap[year == "2007"]) |>
11   ungroup() |>
12   mutate(change = `2007` - `1952`) |>
13   slice_max(change, n = 12)
14
15 gap_slope_long <- gap_slope |>
16   pivot_longer(cols = c(`1952`, `2007`),
17     names_to = "year", values_to = "gdpPerCap")
```

- Here we compare GDP per capita in 1952 and 2007.
- We again keep a smaller number of countries so the figure stays readable.

Slope graph: GDP per capita change

```
1 ggplot(data = gap_slope_long,
2       aes(x = year, y = gdpPercap, group = country, color = country)) +
3   geom_line(linewidth = 1.2, show.legend = FALSE) +
4   geom_point(size = 3, show.legend = FALSE) +
5   geom_text(
6     data = gap_slope_long |> filter(year == "1952"),
7     aes(label = country),
8     hjust = 1,
9     size = 3.5,
10    show.legend = FALSE
11  ) +
12  geom_text(
13    data = gap_slope_long |> filter(year == "2007"),
14    aes(label = country),
15    hjust = -0.2,
16    size = 3.5,
17    show.legend = FALSE
18  )
```

- Labeling both ends helps the audience compare positions directly.

When slope graphs work well

- Use them when the **change itself** is the message.
- Slope graphs are often more intuitive than dumbbell charts for time comparisons.
- They can get cluttered quickly, so limit the number of groups.

Area charts

What does an area chart show?

- An area chart is useful for showing how values evolve across time.
- A **stacked** area chart emphasizes how the **whole is composed of parts**.
- It works best when time is ordered and the number of groups is modest.

Stacked area chart: gasoline price components

```
1 ggplot(eia,
2       aes(x = mon_yr,
3           y = retail_price_decomposed,
4           fill = component)) +
5   geom_area(alpha = 0.9) +
6   scale_y_continuous(labels = dollar_format()) +
7   labs(
8     x = NULL,
9     y = "Dollar contribution",
10    fill = "Component",
11    title = "Gasoline price components over time",
12    subtitle = "Monthly EIA gas pump components"
13  )
```

- The total height is the retail gasoline price.
- Each colored band shows one component's contribution to that total.

⚠️ Area chart caution

- The **bottom group** is easiest to compare over time.
- Middle layers are harder to judge because they do not share a common baseline.
- Use stacked area charts mainly for **overall composition**, not precise comparisons among middle categories.

Stream graphs

🌀 What is a stream graph?

- A stream graph is a stylized version of a stacked area chart.
- It centers layers around a midpoint, producing a flowing shape.
- It is attractive and can highlight broad trends, but exact reading is harder.

Stream graph: gasoline price components

```
1 ggplot(eia,
2       aes(x = mon_yr,
3           y = retail_price_decomposed,
4           fill = component)) +
5 ggstream::geom_stream(type = "ridge", bw = 0.6, extra_span = 0.1) +
6 scale_y_continuous(labels = dollar_format()) +
7 labs(
8   x = NULL,
9   y = "Smoothed contribution",
10  fill = "Component",
11  title = "Stream graph: gasoline price components",
12  subtitle = "A stream graph emphasizes flow more than precise magnitudes"
13 )
```

- Stream graphs are good for presentation and storytelling.
- But they trade away some precision for visual appeal.

Area chart or stream graph?

- Use an **area chart** when accuracy and reading values matter more.
- Use a **stream graph** when you want to emphasize shifting composition in a more visual way.
- For scientific or business reporting, area charts are usually safer.

Alluvial diagrams

What is an alluvial diagram?

- An alluvial diagram shows how observations flow across categories.
- It is useful for showing relationships among several categorical variables.
- In practice, it is often used like a multi-stage Sankey-style plot.

Alluvial diagram: class → gender → survival

```
1 titanic_alluvial <- titanic |>
2   count(class, gender, survived)
3
4 ggplot(
5   titanic_alluvial,
6   aes(axis1 = class, axis2 = gender, axis3 = survived, y = n)
7 ) +
8   geom_alluvium(aes(fill = survived), alpha = 0.8) +
9   geom_stratum(width = 0.2, color = "gray40", fill = "gray80",
10               alpha = .75) +
11   geom_text(stat = "stratum", aes(label = after_stat(stratum)), size = 4) +
12   scale_x_discrete(limits = c("Class", "Gender", "Survival"), expand = c(.1, .1))
13   labs(
14     x = NULL, fill = NULL,
15     y = "Count",
16     title = "Titanic passengers",
17     subtitle = "Flow from class to gender to survival"
18 )
```

- The bands represent flows between categories.
- Wider bands correspond to larger counts.

When alluvial diagrams work well

- Use them when you want to show **how categories connect across stages**.
- They work best with a small number of variables and a limited number of levels.
- If there are too many categories, the chart becomes tangled quickly.

Radar charts

What is a radar chart?

- A radar chart compares several variables for one or more groups on the same scale.
- Each axis starts from the center and extends outward.
- Radar charts are visually intuitive, but comparing values across axes can be difficult.

Summarize **organdata** for a radar chart with **ggradar()**

```
1 org_radar <- socviz::organdata |>
2 filter(!is.na(consent_law)) |>
3 group_by(consent_law) |>
4 summarize(
5   donors = mean(donors, na.rm = TRUE),
6   gdp = mean(gdp, na.rm = TRUE),
7   health = mean(health, na.rm = TRUE),
8   roads = mean(roads, na.rm = TRUE),
9   txp_pop = mean(txp_pop, na.rm = TRUE)
10 ) |>
11 ungroup() |>
12 mutate(consent_law = as.character(consent_law)) |>
13 mutate(across(-consent_law, ~ rescale(.x, to = c(0, 1))))
```

- **ggradar()** expects one row per group and one column per measure.
- It also works best when the numeric variables are on a common scale.
- So we rescale each variable to range from 0 to 1.

Radar chart with **ggradar()**

```
1 ggradar(
2   org_radar,
3   group.colours = c("#1b9e77", "#d95f02"),
4   values.radar = c("0", "0.5", "1"),
5   grid.min = 0,
6   grid.mid = 0.5,
7   grid.max = 1,
8   legend.position = "right"
9 ) +
10 labs(
11   title = "Average characteristics by consent-law group",
12   subtitle = "Values are rescaled within each variable"
13 )
```

- Each polygon summarizes the average profile of one consent-law group.
- But exact comparison is still harder than with a dumbbell plot or slope chart.

⚠ Radar chart caution

- Radar charts can look impressive, but they are often hard to interpret carefully.
- They are best for broad profile comparisons, not precise inference.
- In many cases, a faceted dot plot is a better alternative.

1 2 3 4 Scatterplot matrices

What is a scatterplot matrix?

- A scatterplot matrix shows pairwise relationships among several numeric variables at once.
- It is very useful for exploratory data analysis.
- The diagonal panels often show distributions, while the off-diagonal panels show bivariate relationships.

Scatterplot matrix with `GGally::ggpairs()`

```
1 org_small <- socviz::organdata |>
2   select(donors, gdp, health, roads,
3         cerebvas, consent_law) |>
4   drop_na() # drop obs. with NA
5
6 GGally::ggpairs(
7   org_small,
8   columns = 1:5,
9   mapping = aes(color = consent_law,
10                alpha = 0.6)
11 ) +
12   scale_color_colorblind() +
13   scale_fill_colorblind()
```

- `ggpairs()` quickly creates a matrix of pairwise plots.
- This is a powerful first look before building a more focused figure.

Scatterplot matrix with `geom_smooth()`

```
1 # custom function 'my_scatter'
2 # for scatterplot w/ a fitted line
3 my_scatter <- function(data, mapping, ...){
4   ggplot(data = data, mapping = mapping) +
5     geom_point(alpha = 0.5) +
6     geom_smooth(method=lm,
7               se=FALSE, ...)
8 }
9
10 ggpairs(org_small,
11         columns = 1:5,
12         mapping = aes(color = consent_law,
13                      alpha = 0.6),
14         lower = list(continuous = my_scatter)
15 ) +
16   scale_color_colorblind() +
17   scale_fill_colorblind()
```

- We can add `geom_smooth()` to `ggpairs()` using a custom function.

What to look for in a scatterplot matrix

- Strong positive or negative relationships.
- Nonlinear patterns, clusters, and outliers.
- Differences in spread or relationship by group.

Heatmaps

🚫 What is a heatmap?

- A heatmap maps a numeric value to color across a grid.
- It is great when the data are naturally organized as **row × column**.
- Time-by-category and matrix-like data are common use cases.

📊 Heatmap: donor rates by country and year

```
1 org_heat <- socviz::organdata |>
2   filter(!is.na(donors), !is.na(year)) |>
3   group_by(country, year) |>
4   summarize(donors = mean(donors)) |>
5   ungroup()
6
7 ggplot(org_heat,
8   aes(x = year, y = fct_reorder(country, donors, .fun = mean), fill = donors)
9   geom_tile() +
10  scale_fill_viridis_c() +
11  guides(
12    fill = guide_colorbar(
13      barheight = unit(.6, "cm"),
14      barwidth = unit(8, "cm")
15    )
16  ) +
17  labs(
18    x = NULL,
```

- `geom_tile()` is the main workhorse for heatmaps in `ggplot2`.
- The meaning comes from the color scale, so choose it carefully.

🎨 Heatmap tips

- Use a perceptually clear fill scale.
- Order rows and columns meaningfully whenever possible.
- Avoid rainbow palettes when the goal is precise comparison.

🔥 Correlation heatmaps

🔗 What is a correlation heatmap?

- A correlation heatmap is a special type of heatmap for a correlation matrix.
- It helps summarize how strongly numeric variables move together.
- Positive and negative values are usually shown with a diverging palette.

🔥 Correlation heatmap with **organdata**

```
1 org_cor <- socviz::organdata |>
2   select(donors, gdp, health,
3         roads, cerebvas, pubhealth) |>
4   drop_na() |>
5   cor()
6
7 ggcorrplot(
8   org_cor,
9   method = "square",
10  type = "lower",
11  lab = TRUE,
12  lab_size = 4.5,
13  colors = c("#4E79A7",
14            "white",
15            "#E15759"),
16  title = "Organ Donation Variables:\nCorrelation Matrix"
17 )
```

- Values close to 1 indicate strong positive correlation.
- Values close to -1 indicate strong negative correlation.
- Values near 0 indicate weak linear association.

🔥 Correlation heatmap with significance

```
1 p_mat <- socviz::organdata |>
2   select(donors, gdp, health,
3         roads, cerebvas, pubhealth) |>
4   drop_na() |>
5   cor_pmat()
6
7
8 ggcorrplot(
9   org_cor,
10  type = "lower",
11  p.mat = p_mat,
12  insign = "blank",
13  lab = TRUE,
14  lab_size = 4.5,
15  colors = c("#E15759",
16            "white",
17            "#4E79A7"),
18  title = "Organ Donation Variables:\nCorrelation Matrix with Significance"
```

⚠️ Correlation heatmap caution

- Correlation does not imply causation.
- Correlation only measures linear association.
- Always combine this chart with subject-matter thinking and other plots.

☁️ Word clouds

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🖼️ What is a word cloud?

- A word cloud shows term frequency using text size.
- It is visually engaging, but it is not precise.
- It is best used as a quick descriptive or exploratory view.

♦ `separate_rows(genre, sep = ",\\s*")`

- `separate_rows()` splits one cell containing multiple values into multiple rows.
- Here, it uses the `genre` column.
- The separator `sep = ",\\s*"` means:
 - split at each comma
 - and ignore spaces after the comma

EXAMPLE
If one row has:
"Drama, Comedy, Action"
it becomes three rows:

- Drama
- Comedy
- Action
- This is helpful when multiple categories are stored in one cell and we want each category to have its own row.

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◆ `unnest_tokens(word, description)`

- `unnest_tokens()` splits text into tokens.
- Here, it takes text from the `description` column
- and creates a new column called `word`
- with one row for each word

EXAMPLE
If `description` is:
"Data analytics is fun"
it becomes:

- data
- analytics
- is
- fun
- By default, words are usually converted to lowercase.

◆ `anti_join(stop_words, by = "word")`

- `anti_join()` removes rows that match another dataset.
- Here, the other dataset is `tidytext::stop_words`.
- `stop_words` contains very common words such as:
 - the, and, of, to
- So this step removes uninformative common words from the tokenized text.

EXAMPLE
If your `word` column contains:

- data, the, analysis, and

after this step, only these remain:

- data
- analysis

....

◆ `filter(str_detect(word, "[a-z]"))`

- The pattern "[a-z]" means:
 - contains at least one lowercase English letter
- So this step keeps words that include letters and removes tokens that are only:
 - numbers, punctuation, symbols

EXAMPLE
Suppose `word` contains:

- data
- 2024
- !
- model

after this, only these remain:

- data
- model

📁 Prepare Netflix descriptions by genre

```
1 netflix_words <- netflix |>
2   mutate(
3     description = str_remove_all(description, "<[>]+>"), # remove HTML
4     description = str_remove_all(description, "http[s]?://\\s+"), # remove
5     description = str_remove_all(description, "&|<|>"), # remove
6     description = str_replace_all(description, "[^a-z\\s]", " "), # keep
7     description = str_squish(description) # trim ends and collapse repeats
8   ) |>
9   separate_rows(genre, sep = "\\s+") |> # separate() + pivot_longer()
10  unnest_tokens(word, description) |>
11  anti_join(stop_words, by = "word") |>
12  filter(str_detect(word, "[a-z]")) |>
13  count(genre, word, sort = TRUE) |>
14  group_by(genre) |>
15  mutate(tot = sum(n())) |>
16  ungroup() |>
17  filter(dense_rank(-tot) <= 4) |>
```

- We tokenize the `description` column into words.
- Then we remove common stop words and count the most frequent words by genre.

☁ Word cloud by genre

```
1 library(ggwordcloud)
2
3 netflix_words |>
4   ggplot(aes(label = word,
5               size = n)) +
6   geom_text_wordcloud_area() +
7   facet_wrap(~ genre) +
8   scale_size_area(max_size = 18) +
9   theme_minimal() +
10  theme(
11    strip.text = element_text(face = "bold"),
12    panel.grid = element_blank()
13  )
```

- Larger words appear more often in descriptions for that genre.
- This is useful for quick exploration of text themes.

⚠ Word cloud caution

- Word clouds are visually appealing but not analytically precise.
- A ranked bar chart of word frequencies is usually better for careful comparison.
- Still, word clouds can be good for presentation and storytelling.